

FPGA Beamformer

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Chapter 1

Realization of Digital Linear Systems

The realization of discrete systems is accomplished by converting the system transfer function into an algorithm for implementation via a digital network. The implementation of the algorithm represents the selected form of the difference equation considering computational requirements and finite word-length effects on system performance. The process of determining the optimum realization for the digital network is iterative and is initiated in step 3, *Signal Processing Design*, of the system design methodology. The resources of the signal processor hardware are analyzed for the proposed implementation in step 4, *Resource Analysis*. When an acceptable design is achieved, the iteration is stopped. In this chapter we introduce basic digital linear system realizations and show the use of the Z-transform in the realization analysis. The iterative analysis considering finite wordlength effects and computational requirements will be left to Chapters 9 and 10.

1.1 Network Definitions and Operations

In Chapter 2 we introduce three basic operations – addition, multiplication, and unit delay – that are used to implement the systems described here. In addition, sampling rate decrease, sampling rate increase, and modulation operations were defined. We now consider the general solution of the response of the system, $y(nT)$, in terms of the input and the network. In Section 3.4.1 we developed the general N th-order system transfer function given by Eq. 3.36, that is, the system response function can be written as

$$Y(z) = X(z)H(z) \quad (1.1)$$

Thus, the Z-transform of the response $Y(z)$ is determined as the product of the Z-transform of the excitation function $X(z)$ and the transfer function $H(z)$. We have shown that the response of the system can be efficiently determined using z -domain analysis.

The *transpose* of a network is defined by the following operations:

- Reverse the direction of all branches in the signal flow graph.
- Interchange the inputs and outputs.
- Reverse the roles of all nodes in the flow graph.
 - Summing points become branching points.
 - Branching points become summing points.

Linear time-invariant branch operations remain unchanged in the process of transposition, where only the direction of the branches are reversed. Finally, the system transfer function is unchanged by transposition.

Figure 3.7a is the transpose of the network shown in Fig. 3.6b showing the input on the right and the output on the left. The figure is redrawn in Fig. 3.7b in the normal form with the input on the left. It will be shown in Chapter 7 that the transpose operation provides a method for obtaining filter networks that allow more efficient multirate implementations. Also, in Chapter 9 we show that the network implementation affects the errors that result from finite arithmetic effects.

The dual of a network performs a complementary function to the original network. For example, modulators and demodulators are dual operations. Given a network, its dual is found by transposing the network. Any linear time-invariant or time-varying network has a dual. Interpolators and decimators are dual systems. In Chapter 7 we will see that the dual of a decimator (interpolator) will often result in an efficient form for an interpolator (decimator).

Commutation is the changing of the order of the network operations, as shown in Fig. 3.8 without changing the network results. This can provide for computational savings, as shown in the figure by performing the multiplication prior to the branch operation.

Chapter 2

Lattice Filters

2.1 All-Pass Filter

$$\begin{aligned}w_1[n] &= w_4[n] - x[n] \\w_2[n] &= \alpha w_1[n] \\w_3[n] &= w_2[n] + x[n] \\w_4[n] &= w_3[n - 1] \\y[n] &= w_2[n] + w_4[n]\end{aligned}\tag{2.1}$$

$$Y(z) = \frac{z^{-1} - \alpha}{1 - \alpha z^{-1}} X(z)\tag{2.2}$$

$$H(z) = \frac{z^{-1} - \alpha}{1 - \alpha z^{-1}}\tag{2.3}$$

2.2 M-Order Filter

m -degree polynomial

$$a_n(n) = K_n\tag{2.4}$$

$$a_{n-1}(i) = \frac{a_n(i) - a_n(n) - a_n(n-1)}{1 - a_n^2(n)}\tag{2.5}$$

Chapter 3

Adaptive Filtering

"Filters that adapt to a changing environment are discussed. The stochastic Wiener filtering and deterministic least-squares problems are set up, and the similarity between them is pointed out. First, a block-processing approach is taken in the solution to these two problems. Second, a fading memory (recursive) approach is taken. Then the application of these algorithms to the adaptive beamforming (ABF) problem is considered. The chapter appendix provides background material on conventional beamforming (CBF)."

3.0 Introduction

Numerous applications exist that require a linear filtering operation. Often, the nature of that filtering task is time-varying in some nondeterministic fashion owing to nonstationarity of the underlying time series. In such situations, a filter that can adapt to a changing environment is needed. Examples include adaptive noise canceling, line enhancing, frequency tracking, and channel equalization. Beyond the discussion here, additional material on adaptive filtering can be found in references 1 through 16.

3.1 The Stochastic Wiener Filtering and Deterministic Least Squares Problem

The problem of interest is described in Figure 11.1. The goal is to filter the time series $x[n]$ with a causal, finite impulse response (FIR) digital filter

to yield an estimate of the time series $s[n]$. The error in that estimate is denoted $e[n]$

$$e[n] = s[n] - \hat{s}[n] = s[n] + \sum_{k=0}^N h_k x[n-k] \quad (3.1)$$

Written in matrix form, Eq. 11.1 becomes

$$e[n] = s[n] + [h_0 \ h_1 \ \dots \ h_N] \begin{bmatrix} x[n] \\ x[n-1] \\ \vdots \\ x[n-N] \end{bmatrix} \quad (3.2)$$

or, in vector notation,

$$e[n] = s[n] + \mathbf{h}^T \mathbf{x} \quad (3.3)$$

The solution to this problem for the unknown filter vector $\mathbf{h}$ can be approached in two ways, depending on the optimality criterion chosen

$$\min_{\mathbf{h}} E[e^2[n]] \quad (3.4)$$

(*Wiener filtering problem*)

$$\min_{\mathbf{h}} \sum |e[n]|^2 \quad (3.5)$$

(*Least squares problem*) The Wiener filtering problem takes a stochastic viewpoint where the filter is optimized in an expected value sense (minimum mean-squared error). As an alternative, the least-squares problem views the time series involved as deterministic and the filter is optimized for the specific sequences of record (minimum sum-squared error). Both viewpoints give rise to similar mathematical expressions for $\mathbf{h}$.

The distinction between the Wiener filtering and least squares problems is made in the definitions of $R_{ss}[0]$, $\mathbf{v}$ and $\mathbf{T}$ where

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{bmatrix} R_{xs}[0] \\ R_{xs}[1] \\ \vdots \\ R_{xs}[N] \end{bmatrix} \quad (3.6)$$

$$\mathbf{T} = \begin{bmatrix} R_{xx}[0] & R_{xx}^*[1] & \dots & R_{xx}^*[N-1] & R_{xx}^*[N] \\ R_{xx}[1] & R_{xx}[0] & \dots & R_{xx}^*[N-2] & R_{xx}^*[N-1] \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ R_{xx}[N-1] & R_{xx}[N-2] & \dots & R_{xx}[0] & R_{xx}^*[1] \\ R_{xx}[N] & R_{xx}[N-1] & \dots & R_{xx}[1] & R_{xx}[0] \end{bmatrix} \quad (3.7)$$

For the Wiener filtering problem

$$R_{ss}[0] = E[s[n]s^*[n]] \quad (3.8)$$

$$\mathbf{v} = \{E[s[n]x^*[n-j]]\} = \{R_{sx}[j]\} \quad (3.9)$$

$$\mathbf{T} = \{E[x[n-k]x^*[n-j]]\} \quad (3.10)$$

And, for the least squares problem

$$R_{ss}[0] = \sum_n s[n]s^*[n] \quad (3.11)$$

$$\mathbf{v} = \left\{ \sum_n s[n]x^*[n-j] \right\} = \{v_j\} \quad (3.12)$$

$$\mathbf{T} = \left\{ \sum_n x[n-k]x^*[n-j] \right\} \quad (3.13)$$

The next step in solving for the unknown filter vector $\mathbf{h}$ is to write an expression for squared error based on Eq. 11.3

$$|e[n]|^2 = s^*[n]s[n] + s^*[n]\mathbf{h}^T \mathbf{x} + \mathbf{h}^\dagger \mathbf{x}^* s[n] + \mathbf{h}^\dagger \mathbf{x}^* \mathbf{h}^T \mathbf{x} \quad (3.14)$$

By making use of the definitions of $R_{ss}[0]$, $\mathbf{v}$, and $\mathbf{T}$ the average squared error $\varepsilon(\mathbf{h})$ can be derived from Eq. 11.14 for both the Wiener filtering and least squares problems as

$$\varepsilon_N(\mathbf{h}) = R_{ss}[0] + \mathbf{v}^\dagger \mathbf{h} + \mathbf{h}^\dagger \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{h}^\dagger \mathbf{T}^T \mathbf{h} \quad (3.15)$$

Now, minimizing $\varepsilon(\mathbf{h})$ with respect to $\mathbf{h}$ leads to the following equation

$$0 = \mathbf{v} + \mathbf{T}^T \mathbf{h} \quad (3.16)$$

or

$$\mathbf{T}^T \mathbf{h} = -\mathbf{v} \quad (3.17)$$

Expressing Eq. 11.17 in expanded form will be of interest in the next section

$$\begin{aligned} & \begin{bmatrix} R_{xx}[0] & R_{xx}^*[1] & \cdots & R_{xx}^*[N-1] & R_{xx}^*[N] \\ R_{xx}[1] & R_{xx}[0] & \cdots & R_{xx}^*[N-2] & R_{xx}^*[N-1] \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ R_{xx}[N-1] & R_{xx}[N-2] & \cdots & R_{xx}[0] & R_{xx}^*[1] \\ R_{xx}[N] & R_{xx}[N-1] & \cdots & R_{xx}[1] & R_{xx}[0] \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} h_0 \\ h_1 \\ \vdots \\ h_{N-1} \\ h_N \end{bmatrix} = \\ & - \begin{bmatrix} R_{xs}[0] \\ R_{xs}[1] \\ \vdots \\ R_{xs}[N-1] \\ R_{xs}[N] \end{bmatrix} \end{aligned} \quad (3.18)$$

or

$$\sum_{j=0}^N R_{xx}[j-i]h_j = -R_{xs}[j] \quad i = 0, 1, \dots, N \quad (3.19)$$

Now, solving Eq. 11.17 for $\mathbf{h}$ yields

$$\mathbf{h} = -(\mathbf{T}^T)^{-1}\mathbf{v} \quad (3.20)$$